

Men, Masculinities and Workplace Diversity/Diversion

Power, Intersections and Contradictions

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In a recent research interview the chief HRM manager of a large global company that is prominent in favouring diversity management, rather than gender equality or equal opportunities as its management strategy, stated:

We should aim at benefiting from diversity. There is not just the word 'diversity' but also the issue of gaining benefits. You are right that if we have total diversity it may lead nowhere, we will never arrive at the conclusion. One needs to have some realism here. To summarize the three main business reasons why we think diversity is important I would say that first, we want to encourage creativity in our organization. Second, we need to better understand our customers. And third, we want to have an inclusive working environment allowing us to expand our pool of potential recruits. Our staff should enjoy working for this company.

The interview continued:

Q: What kind of gender policies do you have in your organization?

A: I'm tempted to say that this conversation will be very short if we discuss this issue. Let me rephrase the question. Why would you have gender policies in the first place?

Q: Well, what I'm asking is that ...

A: Yes, yes, but in our culture, everyone is equal and there isn't a need for such policies. Whether this is the reality, whether the practices promote equality is then another story. [Jabbing his finger at the woman interviewer] You shouldn't look at gender policies but practices. That's the real issue. (Hearn & Piekkari, 2004: 15)

Theories and practices of diversity, diversity in organizations and diversity management are ways of connecting different social relations with each other. Following the diverse social movements of the 1960s and 1970s, there has been a host of initiatives in diversity management in workplaces, many of them practical and policy in orientation (Esty, Griffin & Schorr-Hirsh, 1995; Kossek & Lobel, 1996; Loden & Rosener, 1991). These have often addressed how to 'manage' diversity rather than the impact of social movements on organizations. However, it remains an open question to what extent a focus on 'diversity', in its various forms, necessarily and specifically addresses gender relations in general and in particular, the gendering of men.

In this chapter we discuss the implications of gendering men and masculinities for the analysis of both diversity in organizations and management, and diversity management. The chapter approaches this task by way of the following main sections: 'diversity' in critical studies on men and masculinities; men, diversity and power; diverse genderings of men in workplaces and other organizations; men and diversity management; and concluding remarks.

'DIVERSITY' IN CRITICAL STUDIES ON MEN AND MASCULINITIES

Men can now be named as men: there is increasing recognition and analysis of men as gendered people, not genderless humans, classes, managers, workers, unemployed, etc. ([Collinson & Hearn, 1994](#); [Hanmer, 1990](#)). Although naming men as gendered people may (or may not) seem obvious, there continues to be a massive avoidance of this in theory and practice – in organizations, managements, academe and elsewhere. The 'noticing' of men as gendered, in both theory and practice, has meant that previously taken-for-granted powers and authority of men, social practices of men and ways of being men can be considered much more problematic. While these gendered processes may not yet be much more negotiable, they can at least be recognized as more open to debate. Men and masculinities are more talked about than ever before, yet it is less clear what being a man is and how men will be in the future.

The gendering of men in contemporary societies has arisen from several sources and directions. First, there have been major gendered socio-economic changes at home, work and elsewhere impacting on men, so that men can no longer rely on their traditional authority being unchallenged. A crucial aspect of such change is the impact of feminism. Questions have been asked by feminists about all aspects of men and men's actions from feminist empirical studies of men (Cockburn, 1983; 1991), theoretical consolidations regarding men (O'Brien, 1981; hooks, 1984) to feminist (Friedman & Sarah, 1982) or mixed ([Chapman & Rutherford, 1988](#); [Hearn and Morgan, 1990](#)) conferences on men. Various feminist initiatives focus on different aspects of men and suggest different analyses and ways forward for men (Gardiner, 2001; Schacht & Ewing, 1998; [Segal, 1990](#)).

Feminist theory and practice has increasingly highlighted the importance of diversity of women, and thus of men too.

Additionally, men have been named through gay movements and queer politics (Beemyn & Eliason, 1996; [Plummer, 1981](#); 1992; Weeks, 1977/1990). While generalizing about these critiques is difficult, they emphasize the desirability of (some) men to each other, public recognition of men through same-sex desire, and the associated or implied critique of heterosexual men's practices. They both complement and sometimes conflict with some feminist analyses (Edwards, 1994), and also place diversity amongst men centre stage.

The focus on men and masculinities has also come from some men's explicit relations and responses to feminism (Brod, 1987; Connell, 1987; 1995; Digby, 2000; [Hearn, 1987](#); 1992; Kimmel, Hearn & Connell, 2005). These include pro-feminist or anti-sexist responses, as well as work that is ambiguous in relation to feminism or even anti-feminist in perspective. Again men are shown to be diverse, both in terms of relations with feminism and in being or not being explicitly engaged in such relations. There is a further range of critical, more or less gendered perspectives that have directly or indirectly problematized men and masculinities. These include postcolonialism, critical race theory, post-structuralism, postmodernism, globalization and transnational studies, most of which stress diversities amongst men.

There are as many ways of studying men as there are versions of social science, ranging from analysis of masculine psychology to societal and structural analyses; from detailed ethnographies of men's activity and constructions of specific masculinities in specific discourses to analyses of men in global contexts. Our approach here argues for interdisciplinary Critical Studies on Men (CSM) ([Hearn, 1997](#)) that are historical, cultural, relational, materialist, deconstructive, anti-essentialist studies on men (Connell, Hearn & Kimmel, 2005). The notion of men is not to be essentialized and reified, or derived from a fixed, inner core or traits, as in some 'men's studies'. CSM are: on men; explicitly gendered; critical; by women and men, separately or together.

In CSM 'men' is seen as a social category, and distinctions are made between men, masculinities and men's practices, both individual and collective. CSM have brought the theorizing of men and masculinities into sharper relief, making them explicit objects of theory and critique. In critiquing sex role theory ([Eichler, 1980](#)), the pluralizing of masculinity to masculinities in the late 1970s and early 1980s has been an important advance. Increasingly, different masculinities are interrogated in the plural, not the singular – hegemonic, complicit, subordinated, marginalized, resistant. In a key article Carrigan, Connell and Lee (1985: 586) wrote:

What emerges from this line of argument [on heterosexual-homosexual ranking of masculinity] is the very important concept of *hegemonic masculinity*, not as 'the male role', but as a particular variety of masculinity to which others – among them young and effeminate as well as homosexual men – are subordinated. It is particular groups of men, not men in general, who are oppressed within patriarchal sexual relations, and whose situations are related in different ways to the overall logic of the subordination of women to men. A consideration of homosexuality thus provides the beginnings of a dynamic conception of masculinity as a structure of social relations. (Emphasis in original)

A decade later in *Masculinities*, Connell (1995) discusses hegemonic masculinity in more depth. He notes that hegemonic masculinity is open to challenge and possible change, and now defines it slightly differently as:

the configuration of gender practice which embodies the currently accepted answer to the problem of legitimacy of patriarchy, which guarantees (or is taken to guarantee) the dominant position of men and the subordination of women. (p. 77)

Hegemonic masculinity can thus be seen as a political category, an aspiration, that can never be fulfilled. Masculinity, hegemonic or not, comprises signs, practices and performances that obscure contradictions.

The concept of masculinities has been very important, even though commentators use the term differently, to serve several definite academic and political purposes. Perhaps above all, recent studies have foregrounded questions of power. There is lively current debate on the limitations not only of hegemonic masculinities (Collinson & Hearn, 2005), but also of the very idea of 'masculinities', including around the confusions of different usages of the term (Donaldson, 1993; Whitehead, 2001). The very concept of 'masculinity/masculinities' has been critiqued for its ethnocentrism, historical specificity, false causality, possible psychologism and conceptual vagueness (Hearn, 1996b; 2004). Thus it may be more precise to talk of men's individual and collective practices, or men's identities or discourses on or of men, rather than the gloss 'masculinities'.

There is also concern with more precise specifications of men's individual and collective practices within gendered globalizations or glocalizations. Recent critical research on men has moved towards more international, transnational and global perspectives, away from the focus on the Western world and individual nations, and towards the South and transnational processes (Cleaver, 2002; Connell, 1993; 1998; Morrell, 2001; Morrell & Swart, 2005; Ouzgane & Coleman, 1998; Pease & Pringle, 2001), as in such transnational categories as in 'global business masculinity' (Connell, 1998), and 'men of the world' (Hearn, 1996a).

MEN, POWER AND DIVERSITY IN WORKPLACES

These general issues of men, power and diversity are relevant in analysing men and masculinities in workplaces, and diversity and diversity management. Diverse men and masculinities inhabit and are located in diverse organizations, from large corporates to small enterprises. Studies of masculinity have often underestimated the significance of organizations as sites for the production and reproduction of men's power and masculinities, even though workplace issues such as organizational control, decision making, remuneration and culture crucially reflect and reinforce masculine material discursive practices. Men and masculinities are formed and constructed in work processes of control, collaboration, innovation, competition, conformity, resistance and contradiction. As

entrepreneurs, innovators, owners, board members, managers, supervisors, team leaders, administrators, trade unionists, service providers, manual workers and unemployed workers, men have been prominent in the formation, development and change of organizations.

Many studies have made explicit the gendering of men and masculinities in workplaces. Emphasizing paid work as a central source of men's identity, status and power, feminist organizational studies have demonstrated how 'most organizations are saturated with masculine values' (Burton, 1991: 3). They have critically analysed the centrality of masculine models of lifetime, full-time, continuous employment and shown how masculine assumptions are embedded in organizational structures, cultures and practices. For many men, employment provides resources and symbolic benefits that mutually reinforce their power and authority at 'work' and 'home'. Men have been shown to exercise control over women, through job segregation, discrimination, pay inequities and harassment.

Organizational studies focusing on men include those on relations of bureaucracy, men and masculinities (Bologh, 1990; Morgan, 1996); transformations in managerial masculinities (Roper, 1991; 1994); the continuing numerical dominance of men, especially at the highest levels (Davidson & Burke, 2000; Vinnicombe, 2000); managerial identity formation processes (Kerfoot & Knights, 1993); and masculine models, stereotypes and symbols in management. Men, especially in mixed working situations, like other 'members of dominant and status identity groups typically display more aggressive nonverbal behaviours, speak more often, interrupt others more often, state more commands and have more opportunity to influence' (Merrill-Sands et al., 2003: 334)¹.

In our own work on men and masculinities we have explored historical relations of men and management in reproducing patriarchies (Collinson & Hearn, 1996a; Hearn, Kovalainen & Tallberg, 2002); reconceptualizing management-labour relations as interrelations of masculinities (Collinson, 1992); men managers' routine discrimination against women in selection (Collinson, Knights & Collinson, 1990; Hearn & Collinson, 1998) and (mis)management of sexual harassment cases (Collinson & Collinson, 1989); and the possibility of men's non-oppressive, even profeminist management and leadership (Hearn, 1989; 1994). Men at work can also be understood in terms of their domestic situation. For example, some men managers can be seen as working fathers distancing themselves from children and family (Collinson & Hearn, 1994). Such strategies may seem to show corporate commitment, yet reinforce gendered stresses in families, with their own gender power relations (Collinson & Collinson, 1997; 2004).

Among many areas of current debate, three interrelated questions have particularly preoccupied researchers concerned to examine gendered power relations and dominant masculinities in the workplace: the concept of patriarchy; unities and differences between men and between masculinities; and men's subjectivities. In each case, there are tensions between generalizations about and diversities within men and masculinity.

Masculinities operate in contexts of *patriarchy* or patriarchal relations. Patriarchy is understood in this context as men's structural dominance in society. The development of a dynamic conception of masculinities can be understood as part of the feminist and gendered critique of a monolithic conception of patriarchy (Rowbotham, 1979). The notion of masculinities fits well with the move to more differentiated, historically specific analyses of patriarchy ([Hearn, 1987; 1992; Walby, 1986; 1990](#)).

Masculinities are not fixed, but may shift over time and place. The focus on multiple masculinities helps in examining the shifting nature of asymmetrical power relations not only between men and women, but also between men in workplaces. Gendered power relations can simultaneously both change yet remain broadly the same. Just as a major issue within feminism has been the relation of commonalities and differences between women, so men can be analysed in terms of *unities and differences*, within patriarchy. In organizations there are tensions between the collective power of men and differentiations amongst men ([Collinson & Hearn, 1994; Hearn & Collinson, 1993](#)). Men's gender relations intersect with other social divisions, such as age, class, ethnicity; men's gender power relations are complex, contradictory and diverse. This is exemplified by Barrett's (1996) study of US Navy officers which shows how multiple masculinities co-exist in one organization: aviators emphasized masculinity as risk taking; surface warfare officers prioritized endurance; supply officers prided themselves on technical rationality. The Navy reproduces a dominant masculinity with multiple forms, valuing toughness, perseverance, aggressiveness, rugged heterosexuality, unemotional logic, stoic refusal to complain. Women and gay men serve as the differentiated others, against which heterosexual men construct, project, differentiate and display gendered identity.

The analytical importance of multiplicity and diversity has become clear in studies on the ambiguous, discontinuous, fragmented nature of gendered *selves*, *subjectivities*, *identities* and *sexualities* within asymmetrical power relations ([Kondo, 1990](#)). Difference and its construction, such as by age, class, sexuality, ethnicity, occupation, are important in reproducing gendered asymmetrical power between men and between men and women. Many men seem to be preoccupied with creating and maintaining masculine identities, gendered power and status at work ([Collinson, 1992; Willis, 1977](#)). Men's search to construct such identities may draw on organizational resources, discourses and practices. Masculine selves are constantly negotiated and reconstructed in routine workplace interaction through processes of identification and differentiation. These identities may be threatened by factors such as class divisions, unemployment, technology, equal opportunity policies ([Cockburn, 1991](#)). At the same time, a recurrent feature of hegemonic and multiple masculinities at work is intense competition between men, partly fuelled by desire to display dominance and validate identity. Yet competitive cultures and practices may render the search for dominance highly precarious, by reproducing material and symbolic insecurities competition sought to overcome. The search to secure clearly defined, coherent identities may, paradoxically, reinforce rather than resolve insecurity ([Collinson, 1992](#)).

DIVERSE GENDERINGS OF MEN AND MASculINITIES IN WORKPLACES

Analysis of men and masculinities in workplaces sheds light on the diverse nature of power relations there (Collinson & Hearn, 2000). Distinctions between hegemonic, complicit and subordinated masculinities suggest that some masculinities (e.g. white, middle-class, middle-aged, heterosexual, Christian, able-bodied) often dominate others (e.g. working-class or gay masculinities). These former masculinities tend to predominate, at least ideologically, in powerful organizational and managerial positions, while others are subordinated. Although many groups of men at work have been researched, some forms of diversity amongst men, such as age and disability, remain underexplored. The diversity of masculinities is partly shaped by different forms and sites of work and masculinity (Collinson & Hearn, 1996b), varying by, for example, industry, class, organizational type.

Home and Work

Although our focus is on organizational workplaces, it is important not to neglect the home as a workplace, and men's continued low participation in domestic work. Feminist studies have highlighted unpaid domestic labour as an important site of gendered work and of men's domination of women. The home is still often not seen as a workplace at all, with domestic tasks unacknowledged as work. Constructions, definitions and understandings of work are both material and ideological: what work is considered to be – in both everyday life and research – is gendered and contested. In this chapter our focus is on organizational workplaces, whilst seeking to be aware of the connections of work in organizations and work at home. In many ways organizational workplaces are built upon unpaid domestic labor (Hearn, 1987; O'Brien, 1981). Gender domination *within* organizations is paralleled by the dominant gender valuing of the public sphere *over* the domestic sphere; there is thus a double gendered domination in dominant constructions of organizations.

Dominant masculinities in the home complement, often in difficult and contradictory ways, the masculinities of employment. On the one hand, the geographical separation of paid work and domestic life may reinforce specific masculinities at home and in the public workplace. On the other hand, for some men, paid work may take over the house and home, via constructions around life vocation, relations with technology, working long hours or maximizing earnings. The erosion of the private sphere by employment is likely to increase with new technologies and corporate attempts to reduce costs. For many managerial and professional workers employed by 'greedy organizations', more demands are being made on domestic time and space. In demonstrating men's obsession with computers in a Cambridge high-tech company, Massey (1993) discussed how paid work dominates space, time and interaction at home. Even when wives persuaded husbands

to spend more time with children, the most usual outcome was that games were played by fathers and children on home computers. However, simple associations of dominant masculinities and technology are problematized, with the greater embeddedness of new technologies in both women's and men's everyday lives (Heiskanen & Hearn, 2004).

Class, Status, Hierarchy and Occupation

Initially, critical empirical research on men and masculinities in organizations tended to concentrate on those in subordinate positions, particularly working-class and manual workers. Cockburn's (1983) study of printers reveals how manual skills can be defined as highly masculine (also see Morgan, 2005; Tolson, 1977). Working-class masculinities and masculine solidarities are subject to growing challenge with global economic restructuring (Blum, 2000). Collinson (1988; 1992; 2000) examines how men manual workers construct organizational counter-cultures and working-class masculine identities based on the negation of 'others', such as management (as effeminate and ignorant about the processes of production), office workers (as unproductive 'pen pushers') and women (as manipulative and exploitative). The complex amalgam of resistance, compliance and consent comprising shopfloor sub/counter-cultures is frequently expressed in highly masculine discourses and practices. Collinson shows how class inequalities, cultures and identities are reproduced in routine work practices, reinforcing and structuring masculinities. In workplaces that treat manual workers as 'second class', such men may redefine their identity and dignity within work counter-culture through highly masculine values of being the breadwinner, 'being practical', 'having common sense', 'honesty' and 'independence'. Office work is seen as limiting freedom and masculine identity. While supervisors and managers may take their work home and 'worry about it' in their 'free time', shopfloor workers try to keep a strict separation between 'public' and 'private' life.

Office work has been largely ignored as a site of masculinities. Women's clerical work is still not only undervalued but frequently reflects stereotypical 'home-maker' tasks. Men, by contrast, are often employed in relatively well-paid, high-discretion positions that sometimes reflect and reinforce an inflated status as organizational 'breadwinners'. Male-dominated professions and technical occupations such as computer specialists, lawyers and academics are frequently characterized by highly masculine values and assumptions. For example, in insurance sales, men often elevate and exaggerate their organizational contribution to reinforce their power, status and identity at work (Collinson et al., 1990). Despite the work drawing on mental rather than manual skills, masculine mystique abounds. The task is described as a heroic drama in which 'intrepid', 'valiant' men venture into the 'dangerous' world of finance and 'against the odds' return with new business. Men in selling frequently construct an image of self-control and resilience to 'take the knocks' in the aggressive market. Such masculine class images impact on selection criteria resulting in the exclusion of women. Yet closer analysis reveals that

this masculine imagery may be misleading. Much work consists of establishing long-term 'business relationships' with intermediaries and agents who recommend services to customers; nurturing this business requires interpersonal skills. After-sales service is central in the sales process, and women working in offices are often key in resolving clients' difficulties to retain product loyalty.

In most workplaces, industries and countries men dominate management. Yet it is managers who exercise formal power in workplaces and men who frequently exercise power over women. Mainstream and more critical management theory, ideology and practice neglect these issues. While various masculinities shape managerial practices, managerial practices also impact on specific masculinities. Pervasive, dominant managerial masculinities take the form of different workplace control practices, such as authoritarianism, careerism, paternalism, entrepreneurialism (Collinson & Hearn, 1994). Kerfoot and Knights (1993) contend that paternalism and strategic management are concrete manifestations of historically shifting forms of masculinity. Arguing that these managerial approaches both reflect and reinforce 'discourses of masculinism', they suggest that 'paternalistic masculinity' and 'competitive masculinity' have the effect of privileging men vis-à-vis women, ranking some men above others, and maintaining as dominant certain forms and practices of masculinity. Managerial masculinities might thus be understood as form(s) of (different) hegemonic masculinities.²

Managerial masculinities are also hegemonic within organizations in the sense that those in senior positions enjoy comparatively high salaries and other remuneration packages through secretarial support, share options, company cars, pensions, holiday entitlements and other benefits. Even when they are dismissed, senior managers may receive substantial 'golden handshakes', and poor performance does not seem to prevent re-employment in other managerial positions. On the other hand, there is also some movement towards a 'proletarianization' and reduced security for managers, particularly those in the middle grades, as a result of delayering and business process reengineering.

Sexualities

In addition to diversities by class, status, hierarchy and occupation, other sources of diversity amongst men and masculinities, such as by sexuality, are gaining attention. While many organizations are constructed as asexual (though heteronormative) sites of rationality, they can also be deconstructed as sites of sexuality (Hearn & Parkin, 1995). Indeed heterosexuality and heterosexual men are often the unspoken category in organizational analysis and diversity thinking. Kimmel (1993) contends that 'homophobia' and men's fear of other men is the 'animating condition of the dominant definition of masculinity in America'³ (p. 135). Bird (1996) argues that through male homosocial, heterosexual interactions, hegemonic masculinity is maintained as the norm to which men are accountable. Male homosociality combines emotional detachment, competitiveness and viewing women as sexual objects, and thus perpetuates hegemonic masculinity, which

suppresses subordinate masculinity and reproduces a pecking order among men. Interestingly, the pervasiveness of heterosexuality and homosociability is not contradictory; rather homosociability is often used by hegemonic heterosexual men to exclude others and to reproduce their like.

Men's heterosexuality is often understandable in terms of relations between men (sometimes homosocial relations), as is clear in their use of pin-ups and pornography in workplaces. 'Women' are displayed or viewed on screens as signs for contact between men, just as 'women' may figure as currency of conversation, jokes and putdowns in men's socializing (Cockburn, 1983; [Collinson, 1988](#)). 'Individual' harassments of women can also sometimes be seen as exchanges between men. Two major, apparently contradictory, aspects to such sexual dynamics in organizations are: pervasiveness and dominance of men's heterosexuality ([Collinson & Collinson, 1989](#)); and pervasiveness and dominance of men's homosociability, namely preferring same-gender company and spaces (Hearn, 1985; 1992; [Kanter, 1977](#)). The contradiction of these aspects operates in, for example, horseplay, often by and between heterosexually identified men, parodying homosexuality.

Studies have reported on the marginalization and subordination of gay men. Empirical studies in the 1970s and 1980s focused on lesbians' and gay men's experiences in organizations, particularly, though not only, experiences of discrimination and violation (e.g. [Bell & Weinberg, 1978](#); [Saghir & Robins, 1973](#); [Schneider, 1984](#)). These were often initially part of campaigns or other political interventions (Beer, Jeffrey & Munyard, 1983; Campaign for Homosexual Equality, 1981; Taylor, 1986). Various studies have examined the more specific experiences of lesbians and gay men in business ([Signorile, 1993](#); [Woods & Lucas, 1993](#)), the public sector ([Humphries, 2000](#); [Skelton, 1999](#)), the police ([Burke, 1993](#)), and the military ([Cammermeyer, 1995](#); [Hall, 1995](#)). On the other hand, the UK Gay and Lesbian Census (ID Research, 2001) found that while 15% of lesbians and gay men in the workplace who responded believe their sexuality has hindered their job prospects, yet a surprisingly large number (43%) had managerial roles. These figures are not fully representative, and do not take account of individuals not 'out' at work.

Racialization, Ethnicity, Culture and Transnationalization

It is often the case that it is those who are subordinated, who are made 'other', who are initially recognized in explicit relation to the social division in question; for example, ethnic minority men, men of color and black men. There is a large research and policy literature on discrimination against such men compared with ethnic majority or white men. Numerous studies have highlighted racism in organizational and workplace contexts. Research from the Higher Education Statistics Agency shows that black and Asian graduates are twice as likely as white graduates to be unemployed six months after leaving university. Compared with their

white counterparts, black and Asian graduates are less successful at all stages of the recruitment process, from the initial application and interview through to job offer (*First Destinations of Students ...*, 2000/1). Two out of every five black and Asian police officers in the UK have made some form of complaint about racism in the force (Blackstock & Rees, 1998). Travis (1998) has reported on problems of racism in the British Home Office with managers accused of engaging in bullying, racist banter, victimization of black staff and discrimination in recruitment and promotion. Racial oppressions and discriminations bring negative health effects (Krieger & Sidney, 1996; Landrine & Klonoff, 1997). 'Accumulations of microaggressions' can affect self-confidence and self-respect of those targeted (Benokraitis, 1998: 8–10).

The intersection of racial and ethnic disadvantage with gender and masculinities produces complex dynamics. Men's experience of ethnic and racial subordination may contradict their gender advantage relative to women of similar ethnicity or racialization (Edmondson Bell & Nkomo, 2001; McGuire & Reskin, 1993). Men's experience of social subordination may challenge forms of masculinity that assume privilege. Similar contradictions may persist in workplaces in the relations of ethnic minority men, men of colour and black men to white and ethnic majority women, who may be their organizational supervisors and managers. At the same time, there are gradually growing numbers of ethnic minority men, black men and men of colour entering supervision and management, especially lower and middle management in some sectors and countries. All these 'relative marginalizations' by ethnicity and racialization may be compounded by class, nationality, language, religion and other diversities, discriminations and oppressions.

As with heterosexual masculinities, and indeed in some senses men and masculinities more generally, forms of whiteness and white masculinities are characteristically left invisible, taken for granted, assumed but unstated – an absent but present privilege (McIntosh, 1990)⁴. Future work needs to extend this focus on diversity; for example, to analyse and critique white masculinities at work, and how they intersect with age, class, nationality and nationalism, racism and racialization, religion, and so on – in effect to deconstruct the dominant (Hearn, 1996a; 2004). Postcolonialism in its many forms challenges unified white Western male positionality. Accordingly, categories of white men, WHAM (White, Heterosexual Able-bodied Men), need to be part of analysis (Hearn & Collinson, 1993).

Multiple workplace masculinities may also be shaped by national and regional cultures. Woodward (1996) reveals how international organizations like the European Commission are gendered bureaucracies with the 'male' norm as dominant and include masculine practices of resistance to female leadership. With the globalization of management, men and masculinities on management in organizations are likely to impact even more. Connell (2001) has critically analysed the form of transnational business masculinity that is increasingly hegemonic and directly connected to patterns of world trade and communication dominated by the West and the global 'North', as opposed to the 'South'.

EVALUATION AND CRITIQUES OF MULTIPLE MASCULINITIES

The term 'multiple masculinities' has become an important concept in exploring the pervasive, diverse and shifting character of men's hegemonic power, culture and identity in workplaces. This emphasis on diversity explores how certain masculinities usually predominate and are privileged in organizations, but they can also take various forms at different times in multiple organizations producing different organizational effects. This term helps to show how organizational and gendered power relations can shift in detail whilst simultaneously remaining asymmetrical in overall structure. It addresses how diverse subjectivities interact with power relations in ambiguous, contradictory or paradoxical ways. Nevertheless, there are a number of possible difficulties with a multiple masculinities approach to diversity.

First, the meaning of 'hegemonic masculinity/multiple masculinities' remains somewhat unclear, vague and imprecise, lacking in definition. Second, the emphasis upon difference and pluralized masculinities could become a new, and perhaps more sophisticated, way of excluding women, of losing women from analysis and politics (Collinson & Hearn, 1994). Third, the term 'multiple masculinities' has been criticized for being merely descriptive of various 'types'. Indeed a focus on difference may collapse into a taxonomy of masculinities and a list of objectified categories of men. Such categorization fails to address either men's lived social experience, or the fluidity, shifting and changing character of all social relations, identities and practices (Kondo, 1990). A fourth criticism is that it presents an overly negative orientation towards men in the workplace (Alvesson & Billing, 1997). We do not agree with this, as discussed elsewhere (Collinson & Hearn, 2005).

A fifth critique, outlined by MacInnes (1998), is that we are witnessing 'the end of masculinity'. For him, masculinity is becoming obsolete in describing contemporary social structures and processes. Against this, an interest in subjectivities in relation to power asymmetries can enhance analysis of workplace power relations by highlighting processes through which structures are negotiated, reproduced and resisted. Finally, notions of 'hegemonic' and 'multiple' masculinity/ies can be criticized for oversimplifying workplace power relations and neglecting their simultaneous, countervailing and contradictory character. Different social divisions cut across asymmetrical power relations in multiple, mutually reinforcing or counterposing ways. Rarely can complex organizational power relations be reduced solely to issues of gender; but equally the neglect of gender, men and masculinity often renders critical analyses of power relations fundamentally flawed.

Thus when applying notions of 'hegemonic' or 'multiple' masculinities to workplaces, their meanings are not always obvious. Masculinities can carry internal contradictions confirming or undermining power and identity. Men often collaborate, cooperate and identify with one another, reinforcing a shared unity;

at the same time, relations between men can be characterized by conflict, competition and self-differentiation, serving to intensify differences and divisions between men. Understanding men and masculinities at work involves examining interconnections between structures and subjectivities. Considering multiple sources of identity and their tensions can assist analysis of cross-cutting power relations in accounts of hegemonic/multiple masculinities that recognize ambiguity and contradiction. Although we acknowledge the validity of several concerns noted above in relation to hegemonic and multiple masculinities, developing sophisticated understandings of workplaces remains pressing – equally in organizational and managerial practice and policy, and in diversity management.

DIVERSITY MANAGEMENT, GENDER EQUALITY AND EQUAL OPPORTUNITIES POLICY

Current debates on diversity and diversity management in organizations and indeed problematizations of diversity need to conceptualize men. Most mainstream approaches to international and transnational management, that one might think are centrally about diversity, are silent on conceptualizing men ([Bartlett & Ghoshal, 2000](#); [Holden, 2002](#); [Punnett & Shenkar, 2004](#); cf. [Hearn, 2005](#)). Gender analysis is often absent from mainstream texts and when it is introduced, it is often in a very limited way. For example, discussions of gender in international human resource management are sometimes reduced to questions of women as expatriates ([Dowling & Welch, 2004](#); [Harris, 2004](#); [Harzing & Van Ruysseveldt, 2004](#)).

Similarly, studies of diversity frequently neglect issues of power and identity. [Foldy \(2002\)](#) reveals the importance of workplace power dynamics for understanding diversity. She shows how power relations influence identity construction in the context of diversity training, affinity groups and mentoring programmes. [Foldy](#) suggests that organizations play a particularly important part in shaping workplace identity by classifying, categorizing, distributing and acculturating individuals and groups. Diversity programmes directly address identity issues and identity in turn is a key site for the reproduction of power relations. On the one hand, by opening up the terrain of identity, diversity programmes invite the possibility of creative change and resistance. Extra-organizational identities like race or gender can be a source of resistance to existing power relations. But diversity programmes that seek to ‘empower’ employees may also be designed to harness and incorporate the very identities that can otherwise be the basis of resistance in organisations. [Foldy’s](#) focus on the fundamentally interwoven nature of power, identity and diversity can be usefully developed by a closer analysis of men and masculinity.

To move beyond the mainstream silence, neglect and very partial approach to a wider understanding of diversity, diversity management, HRM, IHRM, and issues of power and superordination more generally, involves analysing men as a social group. Such enquiry includes differences amongst men and their interrelations. Such contradictory diversities regarding men impact upon both the

identities of organizational members and organizational cultures. In this sense, diversity management can be understood as part of gendered management, and part of the contradictions within. This involves the simultaneous deconstruction of men/masculinities and management in the context of patriarchy. As managers, men's control and authority may be more contradictory and heterogeneous than it often appears. Delaying and intensification of managerial work may problematize the view that management constitutes the clearest form of hegemonic masculinity (Collinson & Collinson, 1997; 2004). The hierarchical, gendered power of men managers is by no means homogeneous, monolithic or inevitable. Power relations are complex and shifting, sometimes mutually reinforcing, on other occasions cross-cutting with countervailing and contradictory effects.

First, there are contradictions arising from the various divisions and differences within management itself, in terms of hierarchical, spatial and functional differentiations, and tensions between formulation of corporate policy and its implementation. Strategic solutions to management's control problem may compete and be fragmented. Diversity management can be part of these internal divisions and contradictions.

Second, management is set within complex tensions between ownership and control, technological and social relations. Alongside antagonistic relations between capital and labour is a co-existing and contradictory interdependence limiting managerial power. Employers' contradictory demands for both dependable yet disposable workers result in changing emphases, first, upon managerial prerogative and coercion (Scientific Management), and, second, upon worker cooperation and consent (Human Relations) as product and labour market conditions shift. Diversity management is generally understandable as part of the latter strategy. Yet neither of these two strategies can fully reconcile the contradiction between control and coordination in the capital-labour relation. Management control is constrained by its contradictory relationship with labour, and is also highly gendered. Diversity management can also be understood as part of the gendered construction and operation of management, indeed increasingly mainstream management. This involves diversity management being developed as part of (strategic) HRM, alongside and often in distinction from the 'main mission' of supposedly agendered strategic corporate management.

Third, there are contradictions between different men and masculinities. Management differentiates men, both between managers and non-managers, and between different types of managers. Managerial masculinities might be understood as forms of hegemonic masculinity. Contradictions may exist between hegemonic managerial authority and diverse managerial masculinities, as well as between ambitious male managers seeking to purchase their career progress at others' cost. Again diversity management can be implicated in such diverse ways of being men. Differences within and amongst management, men and masculinities may be intertwined with other social differences, such as age, class, ethnicity, locality, nationality, religion.

These interwoven contradictions highlight the complex conditions, processes and consequences of managerial control in the workplace. They question conventional

assumptions regarding managerial power and reveal the analytical importance of similarities and differences between men, masculinities and managements. Equally, they consider how the power of 'men as managers' and 'managers as men' is circumscribed in various ways. Yet despite the contradictory conditions and consequences of the exercise of gendered, hierarchical power, men managers' preoccupation with control over both women and labour continues to characterize many routine workplace practices, including diversity management.

In these various complex ways, diversity management can, at one level, be conceptualized as a men's/managerial project. It can be used to downplay gender and men's gender power (as illustrated by the quotation at the beginning of this chapter), and a means of diversion from gender relations by focusing on a 'diversity' that can mean everything, anything or nothing. In another sense, diversity management and programmes might be seen as a contradictory gender project, both incorporating gender and other social divisions into mainstream agendas, and having the potential to be fundamentally deconstructive and threatening to men's hegemonic power. As with multiculturalism (McLaren, 1994), there are various ways of both promoting and conceptualizing diversity management that are less or more challenging to existing power structures, including gender power (Prasad & Mills, 1997; Prasad, Mills, Elmers & Prasad, 1997). And just as Okin (1997) asked, 'Is multiculturalism bad for women?', so we might add 'Is multiculturalism – or diversity – good for men?'; that is, in obscuring men's power and promoting men's dominant interests.

The various approaches to diversity include those based on cognitive-functional, cultural or social differences (Merrill-Sands et al., 2000; 2003). Furthermore, variations in the theory and practice of diversity management overlap with variations in the theory and practice of gender and equality interventions. Thomas and Ely's (1996)⁵ and Kirton and Greene's (2000)⁶ discussions of alternative, more or less radical approaches to diversity and their possible limitations resonate with Fletcher and Ely's (2003) and Kolb, Fletcher, Meyerson, Merrill-Sands & Ely's (2003) fourfold framework of 'fixing the women', 'celebrating differences', 'creating equal opportunities' and 'revising work culture' that presents various forms of more or less fundamental engagements with gender arrangements (Ely & Foldy, 2003).⁷

Crucially, in these various frameworks there are questions of who constructs 'diversity'? Who defines diversity? Who decides? And which forms of diversity are legitimate (Cockburn, 1991)? This can be seen as part of the interrogation of dominant organizational cultures as part of the long agenda of equal opportunities. It necessitates attention to categories of white men, such as WHAM (white, heterosexual able-bodied men), in analysis and policy. Importantly, one of the most fundamental forms of diversity within organizations arises from hierarchical power differences there, and the diversities amongst men in those hierarchies. Such entrenched diversities are often missing from debates on diversity management.

We can also ask which men and what specific masculinities are favoured and disfavoured in diversity programmes – in their setting up, management and control, and their implementation, consumption and effects. These implications

clearly affect both women and men in the organizations concerned. Diversity management and programmes may also provide space for the development of further paradoxes around men and differential forms of power. An example would be the enactment of some men's racism against other men. These contradictions can also be reproduced in the detailed structure and practices of diversity management and diversity programmes, such as the discriminatory practice of asking training programme participants to speak on behalf of a subordinated category, such as 'black people', to which they happen to belong.

Men's power is partly maintained through their commonalities with each other. Typically, men are bound together, not necessarily consciously, by shared interests and meanings, sexuality, socio-economic power and representational privileging. Men's collective power persists partly through the assumption of hegemonic forms of men and masculinities, often white, heterosexual, able-bodied, as the primary form, to the relative exclusion of subordinated men and masculinities. If multiplicity, multiculturalism and diversity amongst men and masculinities are emphasized then there is a danger that other social divisions and power inequalities in organizations are excluded from analysis. There is also a danger that inequalities will only be perceived in terms of some men's disadvantage and with it a failure to appreciate the complexities of these divisions and inequalities. Indeed one of the most fundamental forms of diversity that exists within organizations arises from hierarchical power differences within organizations, and the diversities amongst men in those organizational hierarchies. These entrenched diversities are indeed often missing from debates on diversity and diversity management.

Moreover, hegemonic, subordinated and diverse masculinities change over time, can be shaped by underlying ambiguities, differ according to age, class, ethnicity and other social divisions, and may be central in reproducing these other social divisions. Intersections of gender (men) and other diversities of age, class, culture, disability, religion, language, ethnicity, race, sexuality, are vital to analyse. Yet, an emphasis upon multiplicity in the diversity management project ought not to degenerate into a pluralism that gives insufficient attention to structured patterns of gendered power and inequality. While attention to diversity is certainly needed, this should not be at the expense of retaining the focus on the structured asymmetrical relations of power between men and women. As Cockburn (1991) wrote, a focus upon multiple masculinities should not 'deflect attention from the consistency in men's domination of women at systemic and organizational levels, from the continuation of material, structured inequalities and power imbalances between the sexes' (p. 225). The challenge is to maintain this double focus on difference without neglecting gender and other structural powers (Foldy & Creed, 1999; Holvino, 2001).

CONCLUDING REMARKS

While hegemonic masculinity and multiple masculinities are useful and important concepts in the critical analysis of gender and diversity in the workplace,

theoretical and empirical work is necessary to develop these ideas. Several conceptual and theoretical problems remain unresolved within these debates, including the conceptualization of 'masculinity/ies', the ways in which masculinities relate to other elements of power, culture and subjectivity; while recognizing a multiplicity of masculinities, there is a need to retain a focus upon the asymmetrical nature of gendered power relations. A complex view of power as material and discursive helps to explain lived contradictions 'within' different 'types of masculinity' and men as themselves sites of power. This perspective suggests a critical view on diversity management, with a focus on identity as a disruptive contested site, with men and masculinities (or even hegemonic masculinity) thus frequently characterized by contradictions.

These developments may be located more broadly within recent debates on globalization, postcolonialism and men's practices ([Banerjee & Linstead, 2001](#); [Holvino, 2003](#)). Focusing on men throws some doubt on the more ambitious claims of globalization theses, not only in their frequently non-gendered analysis but more specifically in the implicit convergence often assumed amongst men and masculinities (Hearn & Parkin, 2001). Transnational and global studies of men continue to show the divergences amongst men, and between women and men. On the one hand, there are privileged global businessmen; on the other hand, non-privileged migrant men with relatively less power. Diversity management needs to engage with these diversities, between privilege and non-privilege, gender, regional location, class and other social divisions. A more far-reaching and structural implication of globalization and postcolonial perspectives is that the growing impact of global Western corporations creates further forms of 'diversity' and inequality between and within regions, localities and genders that are rarely addressed in debates on diversity and diversity management. This is a further, much greater challenge for theory and intervention on men, gender relations and diversity. To do this necessitates deconstructing the dominant at local and global levels (Hearn, 1996a).

Analysis of the changing shape of workplaces, organizations and management is needed. With changing forms of organizing across time, space, cyberspace and cybertime, traditional notions of organizations as relatively geographically isolated in a particular place, are increasingly problematic. Similarly, the notion of organization in relation to transnationalism, globalization, localization and new information and communication technologies is becoming progressively more complex. Organizational workplaces increasingly involve transnational organizations, interorganizational relations, networks, network organizations, net-organizations and virtual organizations. Such historical conditions create many more possible positions of power and diversity for men and masculinities, and hence ways for men, organizations and managements to be reciprocally formed, in a late modern, globalizing and diverging world.

We have reviewed here the gendered diversity of men and masculinities in workplaces. Our approach seeks to challenge men's taken-for-granted dominant power, masculinities and practices in workplaces in general and diversity management in particular. A broad understanding of diversity, diversity management,

HRM and IHRM, and power and superordination needs to address, critique and deconstruct men and masculinities as men as a social group or social category, as differences and their interrelations. This social group includes those forms of diversity of men that arise from hierarchical power differences within workplaces, and the diversities amongst men in those positions and hierarchies. Attention to such entrenched diversities is indeed rare in debates on diversity and diversity management. To confront these genderings of men could facilitate less coercive, less divisive workplaces and work practices, fundamental rethinking of the social organization of the gender and domestic division of labour, and transformation of 'men' at 'work'.

NOTES

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1 Citing Canney Davison and Ward (1999) and Sessa and Jackson (1995).

2 There are many ways in which the authority and status of managers can signify 'men' and vice versa. Cultural processes of signification include the size and position of personal offices; office furniture; the display of pictures and plants; the use or control of computers and other equipment; and the choice of clothing. While business suits appear to have a transnational significance, their particular style, cut and cost are important, not least as a means of managing impressions through 'power dressing' (Collier, 1998; Feldman & Klich, 1991). The colour and style of shirts, braces, shoes, socks and ties (Gibbings, 1990) can carry embodied, context-specific meanings that may reflect and reinforce their organizational hegemony.

3 America here means the United States.

4 Cited in Merrill-Sands et al. (2003: 334–5).

5 Thomas and Ely outline three paradigms: discrimination-and-fairness; access-and-legitimacy; and learning-and-effectiveness.

6 Kirton and Greene discuss liberal (fair equal opportunity, positive action or strong positive action), radical and managing diversity equality initiatives.

7 They also build on build similar earlier debates on the long and short agendas of equal opportunities (Cockburn, 1989; Jewson & Mason, 1986).

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